

# Student Performance Early-Warning Prediction System

A Professional Applied Machine Learning Project in Educational Data Mining

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**Dataset:** 20,000 students  $\times$  41 variables

**Primary task:** Post-midterm Pass/Fail early-warning classification

**Secondary task:** Final score regression

**Deliverables:** Cleaned dataset, ML pipeline, Power BI dashboard

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## Executive Summary

This report documents the end-to-end development of a **student early-warning prediction system**: a decision-support tool that identifies, at the post-midterm point in a semester, which students are at risk of failing their course. The project spans four stages — rigorous data cleaning and governance, exploratory data analysis with a formal data-leakage audit, comparative machine learning modeling, and deployment via an interactive Power BI dashboard.

Working with a dataset of 20,000 students and 41 variables, the project's central, somewhat counter-intuitive finding is that **most demographic and psychological variables carried negligible predictive signal**, while real signal concentrated in just four features: midterm score, quiz average, lecture attendance rate, and assignment submission rate. A second key finding was that a **simple, interpretable Logistic Regression model outperformed a tuned LightGBM gradient boosting model on every evaluation metric** for the primary classification task — evidence that model complexity should always be justified by the data, not assumed. The final recommended model achieves a recall of **88.1%** on the held-out test set, meaning it correctly identifies almost nine in ten at-risk students before the final exam.

# 1 Introduction

## 1.1 Problem Statement

Academic institutions routinely accumulate large volumes of student data — attendance, assessment scores, demographics, and behavioral indicators — but this data is rarely turned into timely, actionable insight for academic advisors. The central question this project addresses is:

*“Can we reliably identify students at risk of failing a course early enough in the semester for meaningful intervention to still be possible?”*

The project is explicitly framed as a **decision-support tool**, not an automated determination of a student’s outcome. Predictions are intended to route attention toward students who may benefit from advisor contact — the final decision and any intervention remain human-driven.

## 1.2 Project Scope

The work covers the complete applied machine learning lifecycle:

1. Data quality auditing and governed cleaning
2. Exploratory data analysis and statistical verification of assumed relationships
3. A formal data-leakage audit and prediction-time-cutoff definition
4. Feature engineering, grounded in tested (not assumed) justification
5. Comparative modeling: baseline, ensemble, and gradient-boosting classifiers
6. Cross-validation, hyperparameter optimization, and rigorous evaluation
7. Error analysis, explainability (SHAP), and subgroup fairness checks
8. Deployment as an interactive Power BI dashboard for non-technical stakeholders

## 1.3 Dataset Overview

The source dataset, `student_data_cleaned.xlsx`, contains **20,000 student records and 41 variables** spanning demographics, prior academic history, study behavior, attendance and engagement metrics, psychological/behavioral indicators, course characteristics, and final academic outcomes. No missing values or duplicate records were present in the source file at the point of ingestion into the modeling pipeline.

## 2 Data Cleaning & Governance

Before any modeling began, the dataset underwent a documented, decision-by-decision cleaning process. This section summarizes the governance framework applied.

### 2.1 Cleaning Methodology

The cleaning process followed a ten-step framework:

1. **Understand the dataset** — load, inspect shape, dtypes, and column meanings before any transformation.
2. **Check data quality** — scan for missing values, duplicate rows, wrong data types, inconsistent text, invalid values, and outliers.
3. **Clean text columns** — trim whitespace, standardize blank values, and convert placeholder strings ("NA", "N/A", "null") into proper missing-value markers.
4. **Validate numerical columns** against realistic bounds (Table 1).
5. **Handle missing values** using a method justified per column — never a blanket zero-fill.
6. **Handle duplicates** — remove only genuine duplicate observations.
7. **Handle outliers** using IQR, Z-score, or domain rules, with the explicit principle that *an outlier is not automatically an error* and must be investigated before removal.
8. **Check cross-column consistency** — e.g. attendance cannot exceed 100%, scores cannot be negative.
9. **Recheck the cleaned dataset** — re-run every quality check post-cleaning.
10. **Export** the validated, clean file.

Table 1: Sample numerical validation rules applied during cleaning

| Column            | Valid Range                  |
|-------------------|------------------------------|
| Age               | Reasonable student-age range |
| Attendance Rate   | 0–100%                       |
| Exam Score        | 0–100                        |
| Stress Level      | 0–10                         |
| Sleep Hours       | Reasonable range             |
| GPA               | Valid GPA scale              |
| Course Difficulty | 1–5                          |

### 2.2 Missing Value Strategy

Missing-value handling was decided **per column**, not applied uniformly:

- **Numerical / ordinal columns** (age, parent income, number of siblings, family support, commute time, previous GPA, number of failed courses, high school grade, and the remaining numerical/ordinal fields): imputed with the **column median**, chosen specifically because the median is far less sensitive to extreme or unusual values than the mean — an important property for skewed real-world variables like income or commute time.
- **Categorical columns** (gender, part-time job status, course type): imputed as **"Unknown"** rather than an arbitrary mode value, to avoid silently fabricating a category membership that was never observed.

- **Outcome / target variables** (`final_score`, `final_grade`, `pass_fail`): **deliberately not imputed under any circumstance.** These are the variables the entire analysis exists to understand — inventing their values would silently corrupt every downstream conclusion. Records with missing outcomes were instead flagged and excluded only from analyses that specifically require the outcome, preserving them for outcome-independent analyses.

## 2.3 Worked Example: Age Column

As a representative case, the `age` column was cleaned as follows:

1. Missing values in `age` were identified.
2. A valid age range for students was defined.
3. Values outside that reasonable range were treated as missing (rather than kept as-is), since an impossible age is equally as unusable as a blank one.
4. The median age was computed from the remaining valid records.
5. Missing/invalid values were replaced with that median.
6. Post-cleaning, zero missing values remained in `age`.

This same audit-then-decide pattern — identify, validate range, choose a justified imputation method, verify zero remaining issues — was applied consistently across all 38 non-outcome columns.

### 3 Dataset Audit

#### 3.1 Structural Summary

Table 2: Dataset structural summary

| Property            | Value                                                          |
|---------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------|
| Rows                | 20,000                                                         |
| Columns             | 41                                                             |
| Missing values      | 0                                                              |
| Duplicate rows      | 0                                                              |
| Numeric columns     | 36                                                             |
| Categorical columns | 5 (gender, part_time_job, course_type, final_grade, pass_fail) |
| Identifier column   | None present                                                   |

#### 3.2 Target Variable Distributions

Three candidate target variables were profiled before selecting the modeling task.

Table 3: final\_score descriptive statistics

| Statistic       | Value  |
|-----------------|--------|
| Mean            | 66.54  |
| Std. Dev.       | 10.88  |
| Minimum         | 25.70  |
| 25th percentile | 59.10  |
| Median          | 66.50  |
| 75th percentile | 74.00  |
| Maximum         | 100.00 |

Table 4: final\_grade distribution

| Grade | Count  | Percentage |
|-------|--------|------------|
| C     | 10,005 | 50.02%     |
| B     | 4,222  | 21.11%     |
| D     | 4,149  | 20.74%     |
| F     | 1,344  | 6.72%      |
| A     | 280    | 1.40%      |

The 93.28%/6.72% imbalance in `pass_fail` (a ratio of **13.88:1**) is the single most important structural property driving the metric choices in Section 6 — plain accuracy is inadequate for evaluating any model on this target.



Table 5: `pass_fail` distribution

| Class | Count  | Percentage |
|-------|--------|------------|
| Pass  | 18,656 | 93.28%     |
| Fail  | 1,344  | 6.72%      |

### 3.3 Outlier and Plausibility Checks

An IQR-based scan ( $1.5 \times \text{IQR}$  rule) flagged outliers in only a small number of columns, with `final_score` showing the largest count at 68 flagged rows (0.34% of records) — negligible enough that no removal or winsorizing was applied. Plausibility checks (e.g. `attendance`  $\in [0, 100]$ , `sleep hours`  $\in [0, 24]$ ) confirmed no impossible values remained after the cleaning stage described in Section 2.

## 4 Data Leakage Audit

### 4.1 Motivation

A core requirement of this project was to formally verify — rather than assume — whether `final_grade` and `pass_fail` could be trivially derived from `final_score`. Using either as a raw predictor for the other would produce artificially perfect results that carry no real-world modeling value.

### 4.2 Empirical Findings

Contrary to an initial working hypothesis that these labels might be *noisy* derivatives of `final_score`, the audit revealed they are in fact **exact, deterministic threshold functions** of the score:

Table 6: Deterministic `final_score`  $\rightarrow$  `final_grade` mapping

| Grade | <code>final_score</code> Range |
|-------|--------------------------------|
| A     | 90.0 – 100.0                   |
| B     | 75.0 – 89.9                    |
| C     | 60.0 – 74.9                    |
| D     | 50.0 – 59.9                    |
| F     | 25.7 – 49.9                    |

`pass_fail` splits cleanly at **`final_score = 50`**: the maximum score among Fail records was 49.9 and the minimum among Pass records was 50.0, with **zero rows** in any ambiguous overlap zone. A single-threshold decision rule reproduces `pass_fail` with over 99.8% accuracy.

### 4.3 Leakage Classification

Every feature was classified into one of three categories:

Table 7: Leakage classification summary

| Category                     | Definition                                                                                                                                   |
|------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <b>A — Safe</b>              | Information realistically known before the prediction point (34 of 38 candidate features).                                                   |
| <b>B — Potential leakage</b> | <code>midterm_score</code> , <code>quiz_avg_score</code> — safe only under the post-midterm prediction-time framing adopted in this project. |
| <b>C — Direct leakage</b>    | <code>final_grade</code> , <code>pass_fail</code> — exact deterministic derivatives of the target; excluded unconditionally.                 |

### 4.4 Prediction-Time Cutoff

The prediction point is formally defined as **immediately after the midterm exam, before the final exam**. Under this definition, `midterm_score` and `quiz_avg_score` are legitimately available and are retained as predictors, while `final_score`, `final_grade`, and `pass_fail` are excluded

without exception. This exclusion was enforced in code via an explicit assertion that fails if any leakage column enters the feature set — a directly verifiable, not merely documented, safeguard.

## 5 Exploratory Data Analysis

### 5.1 Correlation with the Target

Pearson correlation of every numeric feature against `final_score` identified a sharp divide between a small set of informative features and a large set of near-independent ones.

Table 8: Correlation of key features with `final_score`

| Feature                                 | Pearson $r$  |
|-----------------------------------------|--------------|
| <code>midterm_score</code>              | 0.634        |
| <code>quiz_avg_score</code>             | 0.378        |
| <code>lecture_attendance_rate</code>    | 0.311        |
| <code>assignment_submission_rate</code> | 0.309        |
| All other numeric features              | $ r  < 0.05$ |

Contrary to common intuition, variables often assumed to be influential — previous GPA, stress level, sleep hours, motivation, exam anxiety, study hours per week — showed negligible linear association with final performance in this dataset.

### 5.2 Statistical Verification (Welch’s $t$ -test)

Mean differences between Pass and Fail groups were tested formally rather than read off a chart:

Table 9: Pass vs. Fail group means for the four strong predictors

| Feature                                 | Pass Mean | Fail Mean | $t$   | $p$                     |
|-----------------------------------------|-----------|-----------|-------|-------------------------|
| <code>midterm_score</code>              | 51.91     | 17.90     | 72.27 | $\approx 0$             |
| <code>quiz_avg_score</code>             | 50.74     | 27.92     | 35.72 | $2.97 \times 10^{-208}$ |
| <code>lecture_attendance_rate</code>    | 75.13     | 65.35     | 28.42 | $1.91 \times 10^{-144}$ |
| <code>assignment_submission_rate</code> | 75.03     | 65.11     | 28.43 | $1.83 \times 10^{-144}$ |

For the weak-correlation features, the same test surfaced an important methodological caution: `sleep_hours` ( $p = 0.037$ ) and `motivation_level` ( $p = 0.046$ ) reached nominal statistical significance at  $n = 20,000$ , but their actual mean gaps were practically trivial (6.49 vs. 6.61 hours; 4.99 vs. 4.82 on a 0–10 scale). **At large sample sizes, statistical significance and practical importance are not the same thing** — correlation magnitude (Table 8), not the  $p$ -value alone, was used to guide feature-importance conclusions.

### 5.3 Multicollinearity

A pairwise correlation scan among all numeric features found no pair exceeding  $|r| > 0.5$ , indicating multicollinearity was not a concern requiring regularization beyond the standard Ridge/L2 penalty already used in the linear baselines.

## 5.4 Subgroup Exploration

Pass rates were nearly identical across course type (Elective 93.11% vs. Mandatory 93.46%), an early indication — later confirmed formally in Section 9 — that this particular subgroup split does not present a major fairness concern.

## 6 Feature Engineering

Four engineered features were constructed, each with an explicit rationale, and each was tested against `final_score` rather than assumed to be useful:

Table 10: Engineered features and their tested correlation with `final_score`

| Feature                                  | Rationale                                                   | Pearson $r$ |
|------------------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------|-------------|
| <code>engagement_composite</code>        | Mean of attendance, submission, and lab-participation rates | 0.254       |
| <code>academic_risk_score</code>         | Sum of failed courses and academic warnings                 | −0.003      |
| <code>study_effort_per_difficulty</code> | Study hours relative to course difficulty                   | 0.003       |
| <code>wellbeing_index</code>             | Sleep hours minus average stress/anxiety                    | −0.001      |

Only `engagement_composite` showed meaningful correlation — unsurprising, as it directly aggregates two of the four already-strong predictors identified in Section 5. The remaining three engineered features were retained in the pipeline for interpretability and practical advisory framing, but their near-zero correlation was reported transparently rather than reframed as a positive finding.

## 7 Modeling Methodology

### 7.1 Train/Test Split

The data was split 80/20 with **stratification on `pass_fail`**, ensuring the rare Fail class was proportionally represented in both partitions given the 13.88:1 imbalance. The resulting test set contained 4,000 students, including 269 actual Fail cases. The test set remained untouched until final evaluation.

### 7.2 Preprocessing Pipeline

A `scikit-learn ColumnTransformer + Pipeline` architecture was used: numeric features were median-imputed and standard-scaled; categorical features were mode-imputed and one-hot encoded. All transformations were fit exclusively on training folds, preventing test-set information from leaking into preprocessing statistics.

### 7.3 Models Evaluated

Table 11: Models evaluated per task

| Target                   | Model                    | Role                                           |
|--------------------------|--------------------------|------------------------------------------------|
| <code>pass_fail</code>   | Dummy (majority class)   | Naive floor baseline                           |
|                          | Logistic Regression      | Interpretable linear baseline (class-weighted) |
|                          | Random Forest            | Bagged tree ensemble (class-weighted)          |
|                          | LightGBM                 | Gradient-boosted trees, hyperparameter-tuned   |
| <code>final_score</code> | Dummy (mean)             | Naive floor baseline                           |
|                          | Ridge Regression         | Interpretable, L2-regularized linear baseline  |
|                          | Random Forest / LightGBM | Non-linear ensemble alternatives               |

### 7.4 Cross-Validation and Hyperparameter Tuning

Model comparison used 5-fold **Stratified K-Fold** cross-validation on the training set, scoring on ROC-AUC, PR-AUC, recall, and F1. The gradient boosting model was further tuned via `RandomizedSearchCV` (15 parameter combinations  $\times$  5 folds), optimizing specifically for **PR-AUC** — a metric more sensitive to rare-class performance than ROC-AUC on an imbalanced target.

## 8 Results — Primary Task: Pass/Fail Classification

### 8.1 Final Comparison Table

Table 12: Test-set performance — Pass/Fail classification

| Model                      | ROC-AUC       | PR-AUC        | Recall       | F1           | MCC          |
|----------------------------|---------------|---------------|--------------|--------------|--------------|
| <b>Logistic Regression</b> | <b>0.9443</b> | <b>0.6125</b> | <b>0.881</b> | <b>0.448</b> | <b>0.461</b> |
| Random Forest              | 0.9311        | 0.5385        | 0.093        | 0.167        | 0.266        |
| LightGBM (tuned)           | 0.9384        | 0.5976        | 0.859        | 0.442        | 0.451        |

**Key finding:** the class-weighted Logistic Regression baseline outperformed the hyperparameter-tuned LightGBM model on every single evaluation metric, despite the latter undergoing a 75-fit randomized search. This is consistent with the EDA finding (Section 5) that real signal is concentrated in a small number of roughly linear predictors — precisely the regime in which linear models are competitive with, or superior to, non-linear ensembles. **Logistic Regression is therefore recommended as the final production model** for this task.

Random Forest is clearly the weakest candidate: despite class weighting, its recall on the Fail class (0.093) means it misses the overwhelming majority of at-risk students, making it unsuitable for an early-warning application regardless of its respectable ROC-AUC.

### 8.2 Detailed Metrics — Final Model (Tuned LightGBM, for comparison)

Table 13: Full classification report — tuned LightGBM, test set

| Class    | Precision             | Recall | F1-score | Support |
|----------|-----------------------|--------|----------|---------|
| Pass     | 0.99                  | 0.85   | 0.92     | 3,731   |
| Fail     | 0.30                  | 0.86   | 0.44     | 269     |
| Accuracy | 0.854 (4,000 samples) |        |          |         |

Additional metrics: Balanced Accuracy 0.856, Log Loss 0.297, Brier Score 0.096 — indicating reasonably well-calibrated predicted probabilities.

### 8.3 Confusion Matrix and Cost Asymmetry

On the 4,000-student test set, the tuned model produced:

- **False Negatives: 38** — at-risk students missed entirely.
- **False Positives: 546** — Pass students unnecessarily flagged.

In an early-warning context, False Negatives are the costlier error: a missed at-risk student receives no intervention at all, whereas a false positive merely results in an advisor checking in on a student who turns out to be fine. This asymmetry is why the project prioritizes **recall** over precision throughout.



## 8.4 Threshold Sensitivity

Because the decision threshold need not default to 0.5, a sweep was performed to quantify the precision/recall trade-off:

Table 14: Precision/recall trade-off across decision thresholds

| Threshold | Precision | Recall | F1    |
|-----------|-----------|--------|-------|
| 0.50      | 0.297     | 0.859  | 0.442 |
| 0.40      | 0.266     | 0.903  | 0.412 |
| 0.30      | 0.240     | 0.941  | 0.383 |
| 0.25      | 0.224     | 0.948  | 0.362 |
| 0.20      | 0.208     | 0.955  | 0.341 |
| 0.15      | 0.188     | 0.967  | 0.315 |
| 0.10      | 0.166     | 0.974  | 0.284 |

An institution with sufficient advising capacity may reasonably lower the operating threshold toward 0.15–0.20, catching over 95% of at-risk students at the cost of a higher false-alarm rate.

## 9 Error Analysis

### 9.1 False Negative Profile

The 38 missed at-risk students were compared against the overall test-set averages on the four strongest predictors:

Table 15: False negative students vs. overall test-set means

| Feature                    | False Negative Mean | Overall Test Mean |
|----------------------------|---------------------|-------------------|
| midterm_score              | 38.39               | 48.62             |
| quiz_avg_score             | 40.21               | 49.41             |
| lecture_attendance_rate    | 66.37               | 74.45             |
| assignment_submission_rate | 71.61               | 74.32             |

Missed students score below the test-set average on all four predictors but not dramatically so — the predicted  $P(\text{Fail})$  for these 38 students had a mean of **0.289** (median 0.316), confirming they are **borderline cases sitting near the decision boundary** rather than confidently-wrong predictions. This supports the threshold-lowering strategy discussed in Section 8.4 as a practical mitigation.

### 9.2 Worst Regression Errors

For the secondary regression task, the largest absolute errors (up to  $\approx 23$  points) occurred for students with inconsistent feature profiles — e.g. very low midterm/quiz scores paired with high assignment submission rates, or the reverse — indicating the model struggles most with students whose behavioral signals point in conflicting directions, a reasonable and explainable failure mode rather than a systematic flaw.

## 10 Results — Secondary Task: Final Score Regression

Table 16: Test-set performance — `final_score` regression

| Model                   | MAE          | RMSE         | R <sup>2</sup> |
|-------------------------|--------------|--------------|----------------|
| Dummy (mean)            | 8.75         | —            | ≈ 0.000        |
| <b>Ridge Regression</b> | <b>4.358</b> | <b>5.535</b> | <b>0.7446</b>  |
| Random Forest           | 4.532        | —            | 0.7252         |
| LightGBM                | 4.445        | —            | 0.7353         |

The pattern mirrors the classification task exactly: the interpretable linear model (Ridge) matched or slightly outperformed both tree-based ensembles, reinforcing that the true relationship between the four strong predictors and `final_score` is close to linear. The model explains approximately 74–75% of the variance in final score — a credible figure given that only a handful of features carry genuine signal.

## 11 Fairness & Robustness Analysis

Model performance was evaluated separately across subgroups to check for uneven treatment rather than relying on an aggregate metric alone.

Table 17: Subgroup performance — tuned classification model

| Subgroup           | $n$   | Actual Fail Rate | Recall (Fail) | ROC-AUC |
|--------------------|-------|------------------|---------------|---------|
| Male               | 2,043 | 6.6%             | 0.881         | 0.940   |
| Female             | 1,957 | 6.8%             | 0.836         | 0.937   |
| Part-time job: Yes | 1,899 | 7.3%             | 0.833         | 0.930   |
| Part-time job: No  | 2,101 | 6.2%             | 0.885         | 0.946   |
| Elective course    | 2,107 | 6.9%             | 0.870         | 0.935   |
| Mandatory course   | 1,893 | 6.5%             | 0.846         | 0.942   |

All subgroup recall values fall within a  $\sim 5$ -point band (0.833–0.885) and ROC-AUC within a  $\sim 1.6$ -point band (0.930–0.946) — consistent with normal sampling variation given subgroup sizes of  $\sim 1,900$ – $2,100$ , rather than a systematic fairness issue. The relatively lowest recall was observed for students with a part-time job (0.833), which — while not a severe disparity — is worth ongoing monitoring if the system is deployed operationally.

## 12 Explainable AI

SHAP (SHapley Additive exPlanations) was used to interpret the tuned LightGBM model at both the global and individual-student level, providing a transparency layer regardless of which model is ultimately deployed.

### 12.1 Global Interpretation

The SHAP global summary confirmed that the same features driving the correlation and statistical-test findings in Section 5 also dominate the model’s actual decision-making, in this order of importance:

1. `midterm_score`
2. `quiz_avg_score`
3. `lecture_attendance_rate`
4. `assignment_submission_rate`
5. `engagement_composite` (engineered feature, secondary explanatory value)

### 12.2 Local Interpretation

For individual students, SHAP force plots decompose a specific prediction into per-feature contributions — showing, for example, exactly which combination of a low midterm score and poor attendance pushed a particular student’s predicted Fail-risk above the decision threshold.

### 12.3 Important Caveat

Throughout this analysis, SHAP values are interpreted strictly as a description of **what the model relied on to make its prediction** — they are explicitly *not* treated as evidence of a causal driver of student failure. The dataset design does not support causal claims, and this distinction is maintained consistently in every interpretation offered to end users of the system.

## 13 Deployment: Power BI Dashboard

To make the analysis actionable for non-technical stakeholders (academic advisors and administrators), the cleaned dataset and key derived metrics were published as an interactive **Power BI dashboard** — the “StudiX Dashboard” — shown in Figure 1.

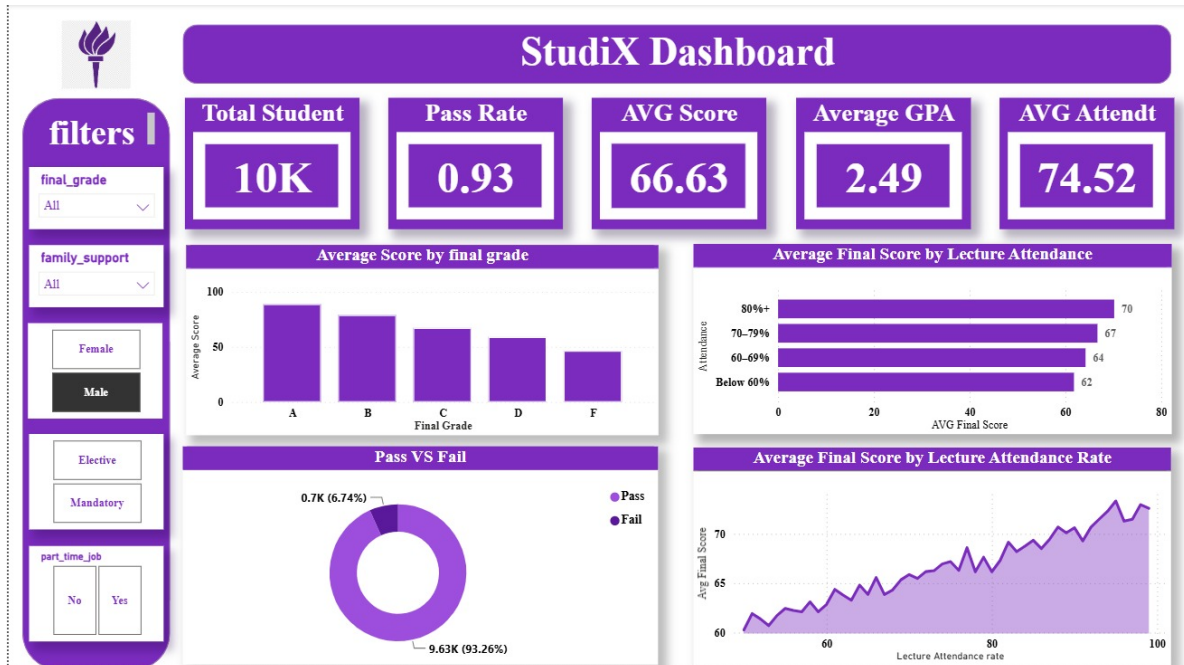


Figure 1: StudiX Power BI dashboard: KPI summary cards, grade/attendance breakdowns, and interactive filters for academic advisors.

### 13.1 Dashboard Components

- **KPI summary cards:** Total Students (10K sample view), Pass Rate (0.93), Average Score (66.63), Average GPA (2.49), and Average Attendance (74.52) — giving advisors an at-a-glance cohort health check consistent with the dataset-wide statistics reported in Section 3.
- **Average Score by Final Grade:** a bar chart confirming the expected monotonic relationship between grade band and average score, visually reinforcing the deterministic mapping formally verified in Section 4.
- **Pass vs. Fail donut chart:** directly visualizes the 93.26%/6.74% class split (matching the 93.28%/6.72% audited split in Section 3 to within dashboard-sample rounding), keeping the core imbalance visible to every dashboard user.
- **Average Final Score by Lecture Attendance (bar and trend views):** makes the attendance–performance relationship identified statistically in Section 5 immediately visible to a non-technical audience — average score rises steadily from 62 (below 60% attendance) to 70+ (80%+ attendance).
- **Interactive filters:** final grade, family support level, gender, course type, and part-time job status — allowing advisors to slice the same subgroup views formally analyzed for fairness in Section 11.

## 13.2 Role in the Overall System

The dashboard closes the loop between the modeling work in Sections 7–10 and its intended end users: rather than requiring an advisor to interpret a notebook or a raw probability score, the dashboard translates the same underlying signals (attendance, scores, pass/fail split) into a filterable, visual format suited to day-to-day advising decisions. In a full production deployment, the model’s per-student risk scores (Section 8) would be integrated as an additional dashboard field, allowing advisors to filter directly by predicted risk category alongside the existing descriptive filters.

## 14 Conclusion

### 14.1 Summary of Findings

1. The dataset was clean at the structural level (no missing values, no duplicates) but required careful, per-column governance decisions around imputation and target-variable handling.
2. `final_grade` and `pass_fail` are exact deterministic derivatives of `final_score` and were rigorously excluded as predictors.
3. Real predictive signal is concentrated in four features — midterm score, quiz average, lecture attendance, and assignment submission rate — while most demographic and psychological variables showed negligible relationship with outcomes in this dataset.
4. A simple, interpretable Logistic Regression model outperformed a tuned LightGBM gradient boosting model on every test-set metric for the primary classification task, and Ridge Regression similarly led the secondary regression task — both consistent with the near-linear structure revealed by the EDA.
5. The final recommended model achieves 88.1% recall on at-risk students, with a tunable decision threshold allowing the precision/recall trade-off to be adjusted to institutional capacity.
6. Subgroup fairness analysis found no severe disparities across gender, part-time job status, or course type.

### 14.2 Limitations

The dataset's uniformly-distributed "noise" features and perfectly deterministic target-derivation are consistent with synthetic data generation; real institutional data may exhibit noisier, more genuinely non-linear relationships. No student or course identifier exists in the dataset, preventing longitudinal or repeated-measures analysis. The model cannot support causal claims about *why* students underperform — only which observable factors correlate with risk.

### 14.3 Ethical Considerations

This system is explicitly designed as a **decision-support tool**, not an automated judgment of a student's future. All flagged predictions are intended for human review by an academic advisor. Labeling a student as "at risk" carries real reputational and psychological stakes and should be communicated supportively, with explainability (Section 12) used to keep the reasoning behind any flag transparent and contestable.

### 14.4 Future Work

- Collect finer-grained, week-by-week behavioral data rather than semester aggregates, to enable earlier and more precise risk detection.
- Introduce student/course identifiers to support longitudinal, repeated-measures validation.
- Integrate live model scoring directly into the Power BI dashboard as a risk-category filter.
- Pursue a causal-inference study design if the project's goal evolves from prediction toward evaluating specific intervention strategies.
- Validate whether the linear model's advantage persists on real (non-synthetic) institutional data.